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Pakistan: Establishing the State, 1947–1958

Pakistan, like many other postcolonial states, has faced recurring problems of governance when a consensus-based political system needed for a cohesive nationhood has often appeared distant. The frequent military takeovers and the separation of East Pakistan as the sovereign state of Bangladesh in 1971 have been the symptoms of this malaise. More than six decades after its independence, Pakistanis largely share a sense of common nationality, use Urdu as a national language, and have been economically interdependent, owing to the historical and ecological features of the Indus Valley regions. Ethnic and regional tensions along with dissention between religious elements and their modernist counterparts, however, have kept the country engaged in a long-drawn ideological debate. Despite serious economic, structural, and geopolitical handicaps that the country has been faced with since 1947, its record in institution building, economic performance, and a frontline role on international affairs remains quite significant. In 1947, British withdrawal from the subcontinent took place in a hurried manner that only added to communal riots among Hindus, Muslims, and Sikhs, in addition to unleashing the world's largest migrations across the new borders. The young states of India and Pakistan were born in an atmosphere of mutual suspicions and disputes over boundaries, assets, and the future status of religious minorities left on both sides.

FORMING THE STATE

Among several serious challenges facing the young Muslim country was its geographical division into two wings, separated from each other by 1,100 miles, whereas the partition from India itself proved a volatile affair. Both India and Pakistan were witnessing the world's largest migration, with 14 million people on the move by all kinds of means. Most of them undertook land routes and fell vulnerable to organized attacks leading to indiscriminate massacres, gang rapes, and kidnapping. The division of Punjab—the most pluralistic and equally contested province of British India—occurred amid massive crimes against innocent people committed by communalist criminals. The hapless refugees moving on foot or on the trains were routinely attacked, while groups, whose hatred toward people not belonging to their own religious communities knew no bounds, kidnapped thousands of women. Atrocities happened on all sides, but given the fact that more Muslims were on the move and came from far away places across India, their journey toward Pakistan was proportionately often more traumatic. According to some scholars, 1 million Muslims lost their lives and about 50,000 women were abducted, of whom only 8,000 were ever recovered. About 10,000 non-Muslim women were abducted during this communal frenzy and 6,000 were recovered through subsequent investigations.¹ Eight million Muslims came into Pakistan, whereas around 5 million refugees destined for India left their homes in what became a predominantly Muslim country. In several cases of communal mayhem, even babies and elderly people were not spared. The birth of two sovereign states accompanied ethnic mayhem, communal discord, and large-scale bloodshed that, even after so many decades, continue to underpin bitter memories on all sides.

Karachi was chosen as Pakistan's new capital where M.A. Jinnah (1876–1948), known as the Quaid-i-Azam or Great Leader, was sworn in as the first governor-general and Liaquat Ali Khan (1893–1951) was elevated to prime minister. Pakistan's first constituent assembly consisted of 69 members who had been elected in 1946 during the British era and was destined to formulate constitutional and other needed legislation for the new country. Still, it would take Pakistan another nine years to develop its constitution. In the meantime, the India Act of 1935 operated as the interim constitution for the new country. Karachi, a former fishing village on the Arabian Sea, had been an important commercial and strategic port because of its proximity to the Gulf and because it was connected with the Indus Valley through a railway network. Still, it was located away from the hinterland within the western wing while East Bengal was hundreds of miles away, wedged between the Gulf of Bengal and India. Within a few weeks of independence, Karachi became a populated city, with large numbers of Muslim refugees. Karachi lacked the civic and administra-

tive infrastructure to house the uprooted millions, but the government, as well as the native Sindhis, afforded land and hospitality to these refugees who were called *Muhajireen* (immigrants). With better educational skills and professional acumen, many of these immigrants became the earliest kingpins of the new country, although Punjabis still accounted for the bulk of armed forces and the police. The western wing, in terms of geography, size, and ethnicity, was more pluralistic than East Bengal, a delta land mostly consisting of Bengali-speaking Muslims and a small proportion of Urdu-speaking Muhajireen.

In the summer of 1947, many Hindus and Sikhs left Punjab for India while Muslims from Indian Punjab and other distant provinces of India chose to move westward. Soon cities like Lahore, Multan, Gujranwala, Lyallpur (Faisalabad), Rawalpindi, and Sialkot turned into major urban sprawls with overflowing refugee populations. Besides Sindh and Punjab, East Bengal also received a large stream of refugee population, many of them non-Bengalis, and the country's first priority was the settlement of these 8 million people. Their distribution to various towns and subsequent land allotment of the evacuee property helped them move out of the temporary tent townships that had come about in the wake of Partition, but their trauma would take many more efforts to redress. Jinnah, himself 72 and frail as a result of chronic bronchitis, moved across the provinces to personally supervise refugee settlements at a time when many princely states, including Kashmir, turned out to be sore points in the emerging Indo-Pakistani relations.²

The departing British rulers had advised 565 princely states in India to seek union with one of the successor states, keeping in mind their territorial location and demographic realities. Three princely states posed a formidable challenge to India-Pakistan relations at their very inception.

The princely state of Jammu and Kashmir, known for its natural beauty and strategic location, equaled the United Kingdom in size, with 86,000 square miles of immensely scenic landscape featuring tall mountains, lush valleys, and mighty rivers including the Indus system. With an overwhelmingly Muslim majority, Kashmir enjoyed historical and commercial ties with the areas now forming Pakistan. The state was wedged in between Pakistan, India, and China, and all three coveted its natural and strategic potentials. As the ruler dithered on the future of this princely state, many Kashmiri Muslims rose in rebellion and, by October 1947, were able to wrest northern and western territories from his control. They were helped by Pakistani Pushtun tribal volunteers, whose steady advance worried Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru of India. Amid greater suspicion between the two neighbors accompanied by a traumatic communalism gripping south Asia, the new armies of India and Pakistan were reluctantly dragged into a war over Kashmir. Negotiations for peace between the political leaders on both sides only added to a military stalemate until the newly formed United Nations was invited to resolve the

thorny issue. Several resolutions later and more wars during 1965, 1971, and another armed rebellion in the 1990s, the Kashmir dispute still remains unresolved. Its borders are the most fortified in the world, with the Himalayas and Karakorams having been transformed into a high-altitude battleground.³ More than anything else, the dispute over the future of Kashmir has spawned discord between India and Pakistan, in addition to a severe sense of alienation among the Kashmiri Muslims, who find themselves in a political dead-end.⁴

Other than Kashmir, the state of Hyderabad in southern India posed some friction in Indo-Pakistani relations. Here the local majority population was Hindu, but the ruler was a Muslim prince who desired to remain independent. In this case, Nehru sent in troops, which annexed the state that equaled France in territory and had been sovereign for more than two centuries. Many Muslims from Hyderabad found refuge in Pakistan, though Pakistan never laid any claim to that territory. These demographic and political developments seriously impacted relations between Delhi and Karachi. The third princely state to underpin the contentious relationship was Junagarh, which bordered India and Pakistan and was located in the southernmost part of the Indus basin. Hindus held a majority in this princely state, which was ruled by a Muslim Nawab, who desired to join Pakistan. Ill feelings between India and Pakistan were not due only to communal riots and disputes over princely states, disputes also occurred over the distribution of monetary and natural resources between the two successor states to the British Raj. Many Pakistanis believed that Indian leaders at large were not happy with the evolution of Pakistan and were intent on scuttling it at its birth. Delhi's procrastinations over releasing funds to Karachi and the stoppage of water into irrigation canals by the Punjab government on the Indian side seemed to affirm Pakistani suspicions about India's reluctance in accepting the existence of a new state on both borders. After the demarcation of boundary lines, especially to the west, several water works located upstream on the rivers had been ceded to India, enabling it to control and limit the water supply into the irrigation system downstream to the Indus Valley. Mahatma Gandhi's fast unto death persuaded the Indian government to release some overdue assets to Pakistan, but only after having damaged trust on Pakistani side.

CENTRAL AUTHORITY AND PROVINCES

Divided into two wings, Pakistan included five administrative units or provinces, four of them within the western wing and a more homogenous East Bengal accounting for the fifth province. As mentioned previously, East Bengal was predominantly a Bengali-speaking region of smaller size, but with slightly more inhabitants than its western counterparts. In the western wing Punjab retained a visible presence in country's civic and military sectors. Still

a predominantly agrarian heartland, it depended on the water flow from the canal head works now mostly left behind in India by the departing British authorities. Compared with East Bengal, Sindh, the North-West Frontier Province (NWFP), and Balochistan, however, the province of Punjab (also known as West Punjab) became the powerhouse in the new country, whereas other units desired equal political powers, development funds, and cultural safeguards. Punjab's healthier economy and an edge over other provinces in services evinced suspicions that, in view of a lack of a proper constitutional framework, increased over subsequent decades. The adoption of Urdu as the national language in 1947 did not cause any major resentment within the western wing, but numerous East Bengalis registered a sense of cultural alienation.

The hold of Punjabi politicians in league with the Urdu-speaking immigrants (*muhajireen*) only exacerbated fears of "a Punjabi domination," because most of the civil service came from these two ethnic groups, whereas the armed forces were dominated by the Punjabis at all levels. Balochistan, accounting for 43 percent of Pakistan's territory, was not a province in the early decades, and excluding a smaller area under the British control, the rest of the region was divided among several princely states with the Khan of Kalat holding a nominal primacy over all of them. Other than Kalat being the largest in territory, Makran, Las Bela, and Khairpur were the princely states that wanted to join the new state, but the Khan of Kalat's brother and a few other individuals desired complete independence. Negotiations between the Khan and Karachi went on for a year until the state was integrated in Pakistan during the summer of 1948. Ten years later, Pakistan purchased the fishing village of Gwadar from the Sultan of Muscat (Oman) for 3,000,000 pounds. In northern Pakistan, the princely states and partially autonomous regions such as Hunza, Nagar, Chilas, and Gilgit joined Pakistan, following an armed resistance against the Maharaja of Kashmir, who viewed these vital regions as integral part of the state of Jammu and Kashmir.⁵

Because of the disparate nature of Pakistani administrative and political realities and the fear of its disintegration owing to internal unevenness and a possible Indian invasion, successive regimes in Karachi opted for centralizing politics. Such policies, however realistic they might have been, evolved without an accompanying participatory politics, especially when the country lacked a constitution for almost a decade. Pakistan's political parties such as the Muslim League were weakened as their top leaders held political offices and provincial and ideological groups formed their own parties, pulling the new country toward newer directions. Ethnic parties such as the Awami League or National Awami Party demanded more rights for smaller provinces whereas religiopolitical parties, including the Jamaat-i-Islami and Majlis-i-Ahrar, advocated Islamicization of the country.⁶ Pakistan's formation as a

predominantly Muslim country was not sufficient enough for such ideological groups who demanded its holistic sociopolitical reorientation. But they were not the only ones who sought a systemic change; even the ruling political and civil elite soon began to seek out legitimacy and national cohesion through a selective use of Islamic ethos. Jinnah had been a secular man who believed in equal citizenship for all and completely opposed establishing theocracy, but his death on September 11, 1948 made ethnic and ideological tensions within the country quite sharp.

Comprised of several provinces and territories, and divided into two separate wings, Pakistan's one-house parliament was expected to frame the constitution and laws to run the country, in addition to creating a shared sense of common nationhood. Including the Prime Minister Liaquat Ali Khan, the entire cabinet came from the assembly, which hindered its operations. Imbalances among the constituent units, contentions over the distribution of assets, political offices, and jobs were soon to surface, making governance a testing issue. As long as Jinnah was alive, he could persuade and even pressure regional leaders toward greater mutual accommodation, but after his death, the lack of consensus on the distribution of political power and economic resources often turned controversial. Even a unifying force such as Islam or shared history in the preceding centuries in India could not override personal and ethnic rivalries, and the matter became more challenging when Pakistan did not have a constitution for the first full decade. The Constituent Assembly passed various resolutions and white papers, including the Objectives Resolution of 1949 and the One-Unit Scheme. An agreed upon constitution, however, could not emerge until 1956 and that, too, was scuttled by the army.⁷ Dismissals of provincial governments in the NWFP, Sindh, and East Pakistan in the early years did not help create a harmonious atmosphere, nor did the amalgamation of all West Pakistani provinces and regions into One Unit present any solution to a dichotomous relationship between the two major wings of the country. After the adoption of the One-Unit Scheme, Pakistan's western wing was designated as West Pakistan, whereas East Bengal came to be known as East Pakistan.

Tensions between East and West Pakistan were rooted in cultural and economic factors, and a lack of constitutional framework. At another level, relations among the provinces within West Pakistan were often characterized by mutual suspicions, and whenever the central government failed to create balanced and acceptable mechanisms, many ethnic politicians (including their Bengali counterparts) blamed Punjab for monopolizing powers. With politicians usually proving vulnerable to ministerial offices and the country lacking a constitutional consensus, civil servants assumed a mainstream role in the national affairs. Their power increased to such an extent that in 1953, the elected government of Khwaja Nazim-ud-Din (1894–1964) was dismissed

by Ghulam Muhammad (1895–1956), the governor-general of Pakistan, who blamed the former of incompetence. Ironically, Ghulam Muhammad was a former civil servant who, like many other colleagues, had risen to the highest offices of the land until he had the temerity to dismiss the elected cabinet. He soon dismissed the Constituent Assembly as well, and both of his verdicts were strangely upheld by country's Supreme Court under "the law of necessity," whereby a strong executive could undertake such measures in the larger interests of the country. The idea of One-Unit was, in fact, linked to Ghulam Muhammad's centralizing tendencies as it owed to the salience of bureaucracy in country's political structures, and was seen as an antidote to vocal East Bengali politicians seeking more powers and resources for their province. In fact, East Pakistan had been the country's most populous region, accounting for 56 percent of the total population. Its leaders agonized over Punjab's salience in Pakistan.⁸ The Muslim League, which had triumphantly fought for Pakistan, was not unable to guide the country toward a cherished parliamentary form of government, nor did it succeed in keeping its senior leaders from hankering after public offices. The provincial elections of 1954 proved a death-knoll for the Muslim League and heralded the ascendance of regional and ethnic parties, who, in most cases, pursued their own parallel political programs. In their opposition to the Muslim League controlled by Punjabi politicians, these regional parties had produced a common electoral front called the United Front, but their own squabbles only encouraged centrist forces such as the bureaucracy and military. The country was being run by senior civil servants who held vital positions and, given the discord with India over Kashmir, Pakistan's security imperatives allowed a major share of budgetary allocation for its Army.

1956–1958: CONSTITUTIONALISM OR BUREAUCRATIC CENTRALISM

After Ghulam Muhammad, Iskander Mirza (1899–1969) emerged as the new governor-general of Pakistan in 1955, and his rise was owed to political intrigues that arose from self-seeking elements within the government. Iskander Mirza had been a former civil servant who had served in the tribal region of the NWFP, and he was adept at manipulating the local elite for specific objectives. He had replaced a politician as the governor of East Pakistan and was able to ease out an ailing Ghulam Muhammad to become the governor-general of Pakistan. Mirza was helped by senior civil servants and had significant support from General Ayub Khan (1907–1974), the commander-in-chief of the Pakistani army and a close ally. Within a short span of time, four coalition governments had come into existence in the Center, but they failed to make their mark, as the power concentrated with the executive—the governor-general—who ruled

the country like the British viceroy and sought legitimacy from the India Act of 1935. In 1956, Pakistan's second Constituent Assembly was able to form a constitution that defined Pakistan as an Islamic Republic and opted for a parliamentary form of government under a president whose powers included the nomination and dismissal of the prime minister. The prime minister was to represent the majority party in the National Assembly, a unicameral parliament elected by the population, whereas East and West Pakistan were to enjoy parity in representation in the central government. This last principle had been rooted in the One-Unit Scheme, which, through a centralized formula, had amalgamated all four units into a single province of West Pakistan. The idea of federalism had spawned this constitution, which had taken so many years to germinate, yet the debate had often been characterized by dissension rather than dialogue. The country opted for the federal system but also made a conscious decision to refer its laws to classical Islamic sources such as the Quran and the Prophetic traditions. In other words, Islam was seen both as a homogenizer for the state and a means of legitimizing power sharing. The proposed constitution of 1956 allowed a multiparty political culture and adult franchise for all Pakistanis, and its Islamic orientation definitely showed the primacy of religiopolitical elements that had been demanding Islamization of Pakistan since 1948. Although all the clerics (*ulama*) and a sizable number of Pakistanis desired an Islamic republic, their own ideas about the nature and composition of such an ideal system remained hazy and even contradictory. The literalists demanded a puritanical form of government, whereas the Sufis were satisfied with certain Islamic and spiritual features, but the modernists desired a more mundane and accountable order. The importance given to army generals, bureaucrats, and even of clerics did not bode well for secular elements who still cherished the Jinnahist vision of a progressive Pakistan based on equal citizenship and a world apart from theocracy.

Even before the implementation of the Constitution of 1956, the powerful organs of state struck in October 1958 and barricaded the emerging electoral politics that banked on the new constitutional framework. Iskander Mirza, in collaboration with General Ayub Khan, imposed martial law in the country on October 7, 1958, accusing politicians of incompetence in coming to terms with Pakistan's dire political and economic problems. In the name of a stable and reformist administration, Iskander Mirza assumed absolute power as the president of the country, abrogated the new constitution, banned political activities, and asked General Ayub Khan to run military courts to try hoarders and other corrupt elements. Iskander Mirza, a close associate of Ghulam Muhammad and an immensely westernized bureaucrat, did not have any political following, nor did he enjoy the formidable position that accrued to Ayub Khan owing to his uniform. Mirza soon found himself outwitted by the general, who refused to accept this duality. On October 28, 1958, he assumed the

leadership of the country and exiled Mirza to London. Ayub Khan, as will be seen in the next chapter, promised cleansing of the administration and shoring up the country's defenses; and his 10-year rule, despite some significant economic growth and liberal policies, turned out to be a trendsetter for his other successors in uniform who have been ruling Pakistan for most of its history.

FOREIGN RELATIONS

Pakistan's location in the vital strategic regions of western and Southeast Asia amid a heightened global Cold War was also significant because of its own security demands emerging from its difficulties vis-à-vis India. The country's security needs, threat perceptions about India especially over the disputed territory of Kashmir, and the westernized mindset of its civil and military elite allowed it to develop closer relationships with the United States and other Western powers. By virtue of their significance as two of the earliest states to gain independence, Pakistan and India competed to gain global allies, and this feature of their otherwise conflict-ridden relationship persists even today.

Since 1947, Pakistan's foreign policy has been focused on three trajectories, which also reveal the three concurrent ideological strands among its elite. By virtue of history and geography, Pakistan has been an important south Asian nation that has always felt separated by an indifferent India between its two wings. The massive refugee influx, the stoppage of canal waters after the boundary disputes, Delhi's reluctance to share assets, and India's control over Kashmir and other princely states transformed it into a foe in the common Pakistani imagination. Indians have also harbored skeptical, ambivalent, and even hostile views about the rationale and political career of Pakistan, usually seeing it as an adversary. It is true that Afghanistan was the only country in the United Nations that had objected to Pakistan's entry into the world body, but India-Pakistan relations were never going to improve after the sordid events of 1947.⁹ India's justification for sending troops into the Kashmir Valley was rooted in the Maharaja's signing of an Instrument of Accession with New Delhi in October 1947 after a tribal attack from the west. Circumstances such as the revolt within Kashmir before India's Partition, the arrival of private militias and soldiers from India and Pakistan to support their respective countries, and the timing of the signing of the Instrument, however, still remain contested. Kashmir led to the first Indo-Pakistan war, which ended in early 1948 when the United Nations (UN) intervened. Kashmir was partitioned into Pakistani-controlled Azad Kashmir and the Indian-controlled Kashmir, which included Jammu and Ladakh. The UN, through various resolutions, urged for plebiscite so as to let Kashmiris decide their future, but the plan remained unimplemented. Pakistanis have held all along that Kashmir, being a Muslim

majority region, would vote for accession to Pakistan and would accuse Indian leadership of dithering on the issue of self-determination for Kashmiris. India justifies its control of Kashmir on the basis of the Instrument of Accession, and during the 1950s and 1960s, it would demand the withdrawal of Pakistani troops from Azad Kashmir.¹⁰ Although UN observers continue to monitor the Line of Control dividing two parts of the former princely state, various special UN arbiters in the past failed to break this Indo-Pakistani logjam, which eventually led to outright hostilities.

Pakistan has always maintained good relations with Iran and the People's Republic of China, and despite various regional and global upheavals, these neighbors in the west and north have usually been supportive of a stable and peaceful Pakistan. Afghanistan, as mentioned previously, had its own ambitions on Pakistani territory, although more Pushtuns live on this side of Afghan-Pakistan borders than in Afghanistan, and over the years have become stakeholders in the Indus Valley nation. Throughout the 1950s and later, Pakistan allowed transit facilities for goods to this land-locked country and has often provided financial assistance for various development projects.¹¹ In the early decade of its existence, Pakistan formed closer relationships with Nepal and Sri Lanka, although the turbulent nature of Indo-Pakistani bilateralism prevented closer regional cooperation within south Asia.

Pakistan's second important trajectory in foreign relations has been with the United States and other North Atlantic powers with which it sought closer economic and military ties.¹² The United States was seen as a supporter of newly independent democracies and its military, political, and economic assistance was in great demand among Pakistani elite. Pakistan's breakthrough came with the visit by Prime Minister Liaquat Ali Khan and his wife in 1950 to North America, where he introduced this Muslim nation as an aspirant of democracy and progressive nomenclature.¹³ The American Cold War imperatives and search for allies after the Chinese Revolution and the Korean War brought countries like Pakistan, Iraq, Iran, and Turkey in alliance with Washington. Growing economic and military exchanges were soon followed by Pakistan joining two important U.S.-led alliances, assuming that such a relationship would shore up its own regional security objectives. In 1954, Pakistan joined the SEATO (South-East Asian Treaty Organization), where it developed relationships with many Australasian nations. In 1955, Pakistan became an active member of the Baghdad Pact or CENTO (Central Treaty Organization), which had been the brainchild of people like Allan Dulles and John Foster Dulles, who deemed such military and strategic alliances as necessary roadblocks to a feared expansion of communism.¹⁴ Pakistan's closer ties with Washington and its regional allies helped train its own military and civil elite, along with raising the country's global profile, although it stymied the evolution of a more nonaligned foreign policy. For instance, in 1956, many

Pakistanis were furious over the Israeli-British-French attack of Egypt, but Karachi avoided revoking these treaties and, in the same manner, the military coup in Pakistan in 1958 was quickly accepted as a new political reality in a friendly country. Pakistan's third trajectory in forging closer sociopolitical relationships was aimed at the Muslim nations in Asia and Africa. Here, Pakistani leaders recognized religious commonalities in addition to seeking moral and political support in their contest with India. Some nationalist leaders such as President Gamal Nasser of Egypt were critical of Pakistan's close alliance with the United States, as were the post-1958 leaders of the ruling Baath Party in Iraq; but among other nations, including those in Southeast Asia, Pakistan was viewed with respect and affection. Pakistan's stance on decolonization and solidarity with the Palestinians have been two persistent features of its foreign policy.

NOTES

1. M. Rafique Afzal, *Pakistan: History and Politics, 1947–1971* (Karachi: Oxford University Press, 2001) p. 21. For further details, see Gyanendra Pandey, *Remembering Partition: Violence, Nationalism and History in India* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2001); Urvashi Butalia, *The Other Side of Violence: Voices from the Partition of India* (London: C. Hurst, 2000).

2. For more on Jinnah, see Stanley Wolpert, *Jinnah of Pakistan* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1984); *Shameful Flight: The Last Years of British Empire in India* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2006).

3. Many of the United Nations resolutions demanded a plebiscite of Kashmiri people to determine their future vis-à-vis India or Pakistan, but India's resistance to such a plan in view of its fears of Kashmiris overwhelmingly opting for Pakistan prevented this vote. Both countries contested the mechanisms and modalities of the proposed right of self-determination, and other regional developments also overshadowed the UN resolve to implement its resolutions, although its observers have been monitoring the Line of Control on both sides since 1949. Thus Kashmir remains one of the oldest disputes in UN history.

4. For further details, see Alistair Lamb, *Kashmir: A Disputed Legacy, 1846–1990* (Hertingfordbury: Roxford Books, 1991); Victoria Schofield, *Kashmir in the Crossfire* (London: I. B. Tauris, 1996).

5. During the 1870s, the British had strengthened their hold on Gilgit so as to ward off any feared Russian attack on India and established an administrative agency in the Karakoram town. On the eve of independence, the Kashmiri state troops led by Brigadier Ghansara Singh were challenged by the local Muslims who, in defiance, raised the Pakistani flag and asked Karachi for a formal accession. It was on November 16, 1947 that Pakistan officially

accepted Gilgit Agency's formal request and sent its officials to administer the region.

6. In 1952–1953, these parties and their other allies spearheaded a campaign in Punjab, demanding the exclusion of Ahmadis from being defined as Muslims. The Ahmadis are a messianic movement established by Mirza Ghulam Ahmad (1835–1908) in Punjab who, to the chagrin of other Muslims, viewed himself as the Promised Messiah. Demonstrations by religiopolitical parties soon became intertwined with the contemporary political factionalism where politicians such as Mumtaz Daultana tried to create problems for Nazim-ud-Din. The prime minister refused to budge and instead imposed martial law in Lahore, although demands persisted for the removal of Ahmadi Foreign Minister Zafrullah Khan. Two decades later Pakistan's National Assembly declared Ahmadis (Qadianis) to be a non-Muslim group owing to their specific views on the finality of Prophethood.

7. The Objectives Resolution was a policy statement on the ideals and directions of the would-be constitution. Among many of its recommendations, it stipulated an Islamic orientation of the political framework. Passed under the stewardship of Liaquat Ali Khan, it was destined to precede future constitutions of the country.

The One-Unit Scheme was mostly pioneered by the Punjabi politicians who sought unification of four regional administrations in the western wing into a single political unit. It also sought parity with East Pakistan in the allocation of political seats and financial assets. For non-Punjabis, this idea proved anathema and was eventually rescinded in 1970.

8. Although Ghulam Muhammad was succeeded by Iskander Mirza as the fourth governor-general of Pakistan, Liaquat Ali Khan's assassination in October 1951 had been followed by several prime ministers until October 1958 when the military formally took charge of the country. Nazim-ud-Din, Mohammad Ali Bogra, Ismail Chundrigar, Huseyn Suhrawardy, Chaudhr Muhammad Ali, and Firoz Khan Noon were all prime ministers of Pakistan within five years and often lost their offices to shifting alliances and gubernatorial unilateralism. There is a concurrent list of several provincial politicians who held ministerial offices at varying times, and some of them became quite adept in forging alliances and coalitions.

9. The Kabul regime protested Pakistani control of the Pushtun tribal regions in the NWFP by backing out of its early covenants with the British Raj. Afghan support for factious elements within these regions was perceived in Pakistan as a destabilizing ploy by "Kabul+Delhi axis." Afghan dependence on Pakistani communication and transport networks, however, along with the greater integration of Pushtuns within the Pakistani economy, gradually lessened the threat of secession.

10. Pakistanis would challenge India's legality on allowing the ruler to decide the future of the states, which the latter did not permit in similar cases such as Hyderabad and Junagarh where rulers wanted to remain independent or join Pakistan. Pakistanis would also suggest simultaneous withdrawal of troops from both sides to let the neutral observers operate the interim administration until the UN-led plebiscite was complete. For more on various views including the demand for a united and free Kashmir, see, Raju G. C. Thomas (ed.), *Perspectives on Kashmir: the Roots of Conflict in South Asia* (Boulder: Westview Press, 1992).

11. Other than common religion, shared ethnicity and history, many Afghans have been seasonal emigrants to Pakistan along with their herds, and this has been happening since time immemorial. These migratory Ghilzai tribes seek pastures in the Indus Valley and come down the mountains during the harsh winters of Afghanistan. After the Soviet invasion in 1979, millions of Afghan refugees sought shelter across Pakistan and many of them continue to reside here.

12. For the pre-1947 relationship between the United States and the sub-continent see, Iftikhar H. Malik, *U.S.-South Asian Relations, 1940-47: American Attitude towards Pakistan Movement* (Oxford: Macmillan-St. Antony's Series, 1991).

13. For his speeches and statements during this historic visit, see Liaquat Ali Khan, *Pakistan: The Heart of Asia* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1950). For the earliest work on Pakistan, see Richard Symonds, *The Making of Pakistan* (London: Faber and Faber, 1950).

14. For further details, see Robert J. McMahon, *The Cold War on the Periphery: The United States, India and Pakistan* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1994).